

The regulations do not specifically require that the runway length be equal to or greater than the accelerate-stop distance. Most AFM/POHs publish accelerate-stop distances only as an advisory. It becomes a limitation only when published in the limitations section of the AFM/POH. Experienced multiengine pilots, however, recognize the safety margin of runway lengths in excess of the bare minimum required for normal takeoff, and they insist on runway lengths of at least accelerate-stop distance as a matter of safety and good operating practice.

The multiengine pilot considers that under ideal circumstances, the accelerate-go distance only brings the airplane to a point a mere 50 feet above the takeoff elevation. To achieve even this meager climb, the pilot had to instantaneously recognize and react to an unanticipated engine failure, retract the landing gear, identify and feather the correct engine, all the while maintaining precise airspeed control and bank angle as the airspeed is nursed to V_{YSE} . Assuming flawless airmanship thus far, the airplane has now arrived at a point little more than one wingspan above the terrain, assuming it was absolutely level and without obstructions.

For the purpose of illustration, with a near 150 fpm rate of climb at a 90-knot V_{YSE} , it takes approximately 3 minutes to climb an additional 450 feet to reach 500 feet AGL. In doing so, the airplane has traveled an additional 5 NM beyond the original accelerate-go distance, with a climb gradient of about 1.6 percent. Any turn, such as to return to the airport, seriously degrades the already marginal climb performance of the airplane.

Not all multiengine airplanes have published accelerate-go distances in their AFM/POH and fewer still publish climb gradients. When such information is published, the figures have been determined under ideal flight testing conditions. It is unlikely that this performance is duplicated in service conditions.

The point of the previous discussion is to illustrate the marginal climb performance of a multiengine airplane that suffers an engine failure shortly after takeoff, even under ideal conditions. The prudent multiengine pilot should pick a decision point in the takeoff and climb sequence in advance. If an engine fails before this point, the takeoff should be rejected, even if airborne, for a landing on whatever runway or surface lies essentially ahead. If an engine fails after this point, the pilot should promptly execute the appropriate engine failure procedure and continue the climb, assuming the performance capability exists. As a general recommendation, if the landing gear has not been selected up, the takeoff should be rejected, even if airborne.

As a practical matter for planning purposes, the option of continuing the takeoff probably does not exist unless the published single-engine rate-of-climb performance is at least 100 to 200 fpm. Thermal turbulence, wind gusts, engine and propeller wear, or poor technique in airspeed, bank angle, and rudder control can easily negate even a 200 fpm rate of climb.

A pre-takeoff safety brief clearly defines all pre-planned emergency actions to all crewmembers. Even if operating the aircraft alone, the pilot should review and be familiar with takeoff emergency considerations. Indecision at the moment an emergency occurs degrades reaction time and the ability to make a proper response.

Weight and Balance

The weight and balance concept is no different than that of a single-engine airplane. The actual execution, however, is almost invariably more complex due to a number of new loading areas, including nose and aft baggage compartments, nacelle lockers, main fuel tanks, auxiliary fuel tanks, nacelle fuel tanks, and numerous seating options in a variety of interior configurations. The flexibility in loading offered by the multiengine airplane places a responsibility on the pilot to address weight and balance prior to each flight.

The terms empty weight, licensed empty weight, standard empty weight, and basic empty weight as they appear on the manufacturer's original weight and balance documents are sometimes confused by pilots.

In 1975, the General Aviation Manufacturers Association (GAMA) adopted a standardized format for AFM/POHs. It was implemented by most manufacturers in model year 1976. Airplanes whose manufacturers conform to the GAMA standards utilize the following terminology for weight and balance:

standard empty weight + optional equipment = basic empty weight

Standard empty weight is the weight of the standard airplane, full hydraulic fluid, unusable fuel, and full oil. Optional equipment includes the weight of all equipment installed beyond standard. Basic empty weight is the standard empty weight plus optional equipment. Note that basic empty weight includes no usable fuel, but full oil.

Airplanes manufactured prior to the GAMA format generally utilize the following terminology for weight and balance, although the exact terms may vary somewhat:

empty weight + unusable fuel = standard empty weight

standard empty weight + optional equipment = licensed empty weight

Empty weight is the weight of the standard airplane, full hydraulic fluid, and undrainable oil. Unusable fuel is the fuel remaining in the airplane not available to the engines. Standard empty weight is the empty weight plus unusable fuel. When optional equipment is added to the standard empty weight, the result is licensed empty weight. Licensed empty weight, therefore, includes the standard airplane, optional equipment, full hydraulic fluid, unusable fuel, and undrainable oil.

The major difference between the two formats (GAMA and the old) is that basic empty weight includes full oil and licensed empty weight does not. Oil should always be added to any weight and balance utilizing a licensed empty weight.

When the airplane is placed in service, amended weight and balance documents are prepared by appropriately-rated maintenance personnel to reflect changes in installed equipment. The old weight and balance documents are customarily marked “superseded” and retained in the AFM/POH. Maintenance personnel are under no regulatory obligation to utilize the GAMA terminology, so weight and balance documents subsequent to the original may use a variety of terms. Pilots should use care to determine whether or not oil has to be added to the weight and balance calculations or if it is already included in the figures provided.

The multiengine airplane is where most pilots encounter the term “zero fuel weight” for the first time. Not all multiengine airplanes have a zero fuel weight limitation published in their AFM/POH, but many do. Zero fuel weight is simply the maximum allowable weight of the airplane and payload, assuming there is no usable fuel on board. The actual airplane is not devoid of fuel at the time of loading, of course. This is merely a calculation that assumes it was. If a zero fuel weight limitation is published, then all weight in excess of that figure should consist of usable fuel. The purpose of a zero fuel weight is to limit load forces on the wing spars with heavy fuselage loads.

Assume a hypothetical multiengine airplane with the following weights and capacities:

Basic empty weight 3,200 lbs
Zero fuel weight 4,400 lbs
Maximum takeoff weight 5,200 lbs
Maximum usable fuel 180 gal

1. Calculate the useful load:

Maximum takeoff weight 5,200 lbs
Basic empty weight –3,200 lbs
Useful load 2,000 lbs

The useful load is the maximum combination of usable fuel, passengers, baggage, and cargo that the airplane is capable of carrying.

2. Calculate the payload:

Zero fuel weight 4,400 lbs
Basic empty weight –3,200 lbs
Payload 1,200 lbs

The payload is the maximum combination of passengers, baggage, and cargo that the airplane is capable of carrying. A zero fuel weight, if published, is the limiting weight.

3. Calculate the fuel capacity at maximum payload (1,200 lb):

Maximum takeoff weight 5,200 lbs
Zero fuel weight –4,400 lbs
Fuel allowed 800 lbs

Assuming maximum payload, the only weight permitted in excess of the zero fuel weight should consist of usable fuel. In this case, 133.3 gallons (gal).

4. Calculate the payload at maximum fuel capacity (180 gal):

Basic empty weight 3,200 lbs
Maximum usable fuel +1,080 lbs
Weight with max. fuel 4,280 lbs
Maximum takeoff weight 5,200 lbs
Weight with max. fuel –4,280 lbs
Payload allowed 920 lbs

Assuming maximum fuel, the payload is the difference between the weight of the fueled airplane and the maximum takeoff weight.

Some multiengine airplanes have a ramp weight, which is in excess of the maximum takeoff weight. The ramp weight allows for fuel that would be burned during taxi and run-up, permitting a takeoff at full maximum takeoff weight. The airplane should weigh no more than maximum takeoff weight at the beginning of the takeoff roll.

A maximum landing weight is a limitation against landing at a weight in excess of the published value. This requires preflight planning of fuel burn to ensure that the airplane weight upon arrival at destination is at or below the maximum landing weight. In the event of an emergency requiring an immediate landing, the pilot should recognize that the structural margins designed into the airplane are not fully available when over landing weight. An overweight landing inspection may be advisable—the service manual or manufacturer should be consulted.

Although the foregoing problems only dealt with weight, the balance portion of weight and balance is equally vital. The flight characteristics of the multiengine airplane vary significantly with shifts of the center of gravity (CG) within the approved envelope.

At forward CG, the airplane is more stable, with a slightly higher stalling speed, a slightly slower cruising speed, and favorable stall characteristics. At aft CG, the airplane is less stable, with a slightly lower stalling speed, a slightly faster cruising speed, and less desirable stall characteristics. Forward CG limits are usually determined in certification by elevator/stabilator authority in the landing round out. Aft CG limits are determined by the minimum acceptable longitudinal stability. It is contrary to the airplane's operating limitations and 14 CFR to exceed any weight and balance parameter.

Some multiengine airplanes may require ballast to remain within CG limits under certain loading conditions. Several models require ballast in the aft baggage compartment with only a learner and instructor on board to avoid exceeding the forward CG limit. When passengers are seated in the aft-most seats of some models, ballast or baggage may be required in the nose baggage compartment to avoid exceeding the aft CG limit. The pilot should direct the seating of passengers and placement of baggage and cargo to achieve a CG within the approved envelope. Most multiengine airplanes have general loading recommendations in the weight and balance section of the AFM/POH. When ballast is added, it should be securely tied down, and it should not exceed the maximum allowable floor loading.

Some airplanes make use of a special weight and balance plotter. It consists of several movable parts that can be adjusted over a plotting board on which the CG envelope is printed. The reverse side of the typical plotter contains general loading recommendations for the particular airplane. A pencil line plot can be made directly on the CG envelope imprinted on the working side of the plotting board. This plot can easily be erased and recalculated anew for each flight. This plotter is to be used only for the make and model airplane for which it was designed.

Ground Operation

Good habits learned with single-engine airplanes are directly applicable to multiengine airplanes for preflight and engine start. Upon placing the airplane in motion to taxi, the new multiengine pilot may notice several differences. The most obvious is the increased wingspan and the need for even greater vigilance while taxiing in close quarters. Ground handling may seem somewhat ponderous and the multiengine airplane is not as nimble as the typical two- or four-place single-engine airplane. As always, the pilot should use care not to ride the brakes by keeping engine power to a minimum. One ground handling advantage of the multiengine airplane over single-engine airplanes is the differential power capability. Turning with an assist from differential power minimizes both the need for brakes during turns and the turning radius.

The pilot should be aware, however, that making a sharp turn assisted by brakes and differential power can cause the airplane to pivot about a stationary inboard wheel and landing gear. The airplane was not designed for this action, and the pilot should not allow it to occur. Unless otherwise directed by the AFM/POH, all ground operations should be conducted with the cowl flaps fully open. The use of strobe lights is normally deferred until taxiing onto the active runway.

Normal and Crosswind Takeoff and Climb

After completing the before takeoff checklist and pre-takeoff safety brief, and after receiving an air traffic control (ATC) clearance (if applicable), the pilot should check for approaching aircraft and line up on the runway centerline. If departing from an airport without an operating control tower, the pilot should listen on the appropriate frequency, make a careful check for traffic, and transmit a radio advisory before entering the runway. Sharp turns onto the runway combined with a rolling takeoff are not a good operating practice and may be prohibited by the AFM/POH due to the possibility of “unporting” a fuel tank pickup. The takeoff itself may be prohibited by the AFM/POH under any circumstances below certain fuel levels. The flight controls should be positioned for a crosswind, if present. Exterior lights, such as landing and taxi lights, and wingtip strobes should be illuminated immediately prior to initiating the takeoff roll, day or night. If holding in takeoff position for any length of time, particularly at night, the pilot should activate all exterior lights upon taxiing into position.

Takeoff power should be set as recommended in the AFM/POH. With normally aspirated (non-turbocharged) engines, this is full throttle. Full throttle is also used in most turbocharged engines. There are some turbocharged engines, however, that require the pilot to set a specific power setting, usually just below red line manifold pressure. This yields takeoff power with less than full throttle travel. Turbocharged engines often require special consideration. Throttle motion with turbocharged engines should be exceptionally smooth and deliberate. It is acceptable, and may even be desirable, to hold the airplane in position with brakes as the throttles are advanced. Brake release customarily occurs after significant boost from the turbocharger is established. This prevents utilizing the available runway with slow, partial throttle acceleration as the engine power is increased. If runway length or obstacle clearance is critical, full power should be set before brake release as specified in the performance charts. Note that for all airplanes equipped with constant speed propellers, the engines can turn at maximum rpm and can develop maximum engine power before brake release. Although the mass of air per revolution is small, the number of rpm is high and propeller thrust is maximized. Thrust is at a maximum at the beginning of the takeoff roll and then decreases as the airplane gains speed. The high slipstream velocity during takeoff increases the effective lift of the wing behind the propeller(s).

As takeoff power is established, initial attention should be divided between tracking the runway centerline and monitoring the engine gauges. Many novice multiengine pilots tend to fixate on the airspeed indicator just as soon as the airplane begins its takeoff roll. Instead, the pilot should confirm that both engines are developing full-rated manifold pressure and rpm, and that as the fuel flows, fuel pressures, exhaust gas temperatures (EGTs), and oil pressures are matched in their normal ranges. A directed and purposeful scan of the engine gauges can be accomplished well before the airplane approaches rotation speed. If a crosswind is present, the aileron displacement in the direction of the crosswind may be reduced as the airplane accelerates. The elevator/stabilator control should be held neutral throughout.

Full rated takeoff power should be used for every takeoff. Partial power takeoffs are not recommended. There is no evidence to suggest that the life of modern reciprocating engines is prolonged by partial power takeoffs. In actuality, excessive heat and engine wear can occur with partial power as the fuel metering system fails to deliver the slightly over-rich mixture vital for engine cooling during takeoff.

There are several key airspeeds to be noted during the takeoff and climb sequence in any twin. The first speed to consider is V_{MC} . If an engine fails below V_{MC} while the airplane is on the ground, the takeoff needs to be rejected. Directional control can only be maintained by promptly closing both throttles and using rudder and brakes as required. If an engine fails below V_{MC} while airborne, directional control is not possible with the remaining engine producing takeoff power. On takeoffs, therefore, the airplane should never be airborne before the airspeed exceeds V_{MC} . Pilots should use the manufacturer’s recommended rotation speed (V_R) or lift-off speed (V_{LOF}). If no such speeds are published, a minimum of V_{MC} plus 5 knots should be used for V_R .

The rotation to a takeoff pitch attitude is performed with smooth control inputs. With a crosswind, the pilot should ensure that the landing gear does not momentarily touch the runway after the airplane has lifted off, as a side drift is present. The rotation may be accomplished more positively and/or at a higher speed under these conditions. However, the pilot should keep in mind that the AFM/POH performance figures for accelerate-stop distance, takeoff ground roll, and distance to clear an obstacle were calculated at the recommended V_R and/or V_{LOF} speed.

After lift-off, the next consideration is to gain altitude as rapidly as possible. To assist the pilot in takeoff and initial climb profile, some AFM/POHs give a “50-foot” or “50-foot barrier” speed to use as a target during rotation, lift-off, and acceleration to V_Y . Prior to takeoff, pilots should review the takeoff distance to 50 feet above ground level (AGL) and the stopping distance from 50 feet AGL and add the distance together. If the runway is no longer than the total value, the odds are very good that if anything fails, it will be an off-runway landing at the least. After leaving the ground, altitude gain is more important than achieving an excess of airspeed. Experience has shown that excessive speed cannot be effectively converted into altitude in the event of an engine failure. Additional altitude increases the time available to recognize and respond to any aircraft abnormality or emergency during the climb segment.

Excessive climb attitudes can be just as dangerous as excessive airspeed. Steep climb attitudes limit forward visibility and impede the pilot's ability to detect and avoid other traffic. The airplane should be allowed to accelerate in a shallow climb to attain V_Y , the best all-engine rate-of-climb speed. V_Y should then be maintained until achieving a safe single-engine maneuvering altitude, which considers terrain and obstructions. Any speed above or below V_Y reduces the performance of the airplane. Even with all engines operating normally, terrain and obstruction clearance during the initial climb after takeoff is an important preflight consideration. Most airliners and most turbine-powered airplanes climb out at an attitude that yields best rate of climb (V_Y) usually utilizing a flight management system (FMS).

When to raise the landing gear after takeoff depends on several factors. Normally, the gear should be retracted when there is insufficient runway available for landing and after a positive rate of climb is established as indicated on the altimeter. If an excessive amount of runway is available, it would not be prudent to leave the landing gear down for an extended period of time and sacrifice climb performance and acceleration. Leaving the gear extended after the point at which a landing cannot be accomplished on the runway is a hazard. In some multiengine airplanes, operating in a high-density altitude environment, a positive rate of climb with the landing gear down is not possible. Waiting for a positive rate of climb under these conditions is not practicable. An important point to remember is that raising the landing gear as early as possible after liftoff drastically decreases the drag profile and significantly increases climb performance should an engine failure occur. An equally important point to remember is that leaving the gear down to land on sufficient runway or overrun is a much better option than landing with the gear retracted. A general recommendation is to raise the landing gear not later than V_{YSE} airspeed, and once the gear is up, consider it a GO commitment if climb performance is available. Some AFM/POHs direct the pilot to apply the wheel brakes momentarily after lift-off to stop wheel rotation prior to landing gear retraction. If flaps were extended for takeoff, they should be retracted as recommended in the AFM/POH.

Once a safe, single-engine maneuvering altitude has been reached, typically a minimum of 400–500 feet AGL, the transition to an en route climb speed should be made. This speed is higher than V_Y and is usually maintained to cruising altitude. En route climb speed gives better visibility, increased engine cooling, and a higher groundspeed. Takeoff power can be reduced, if desired, as the transition to en route climb speed is made.

Some airplanes have a climb power setting published in the AFM/POH as a recommendation (or sometimes as a limitation), which should then be set for en route climb. If there is no climb power setting published, it is customary, but not a requirement, to reduce manifold pressure and rpm somewhat for en route climb. The propellers are usually synchronized after the first power reduction and the yaw damper, if installed, engaged. The AFM/POH may also recommend leaning the mixtures during climb. The climb checklist should be accomplished as traffic and work load allow. [Figure 13-7]

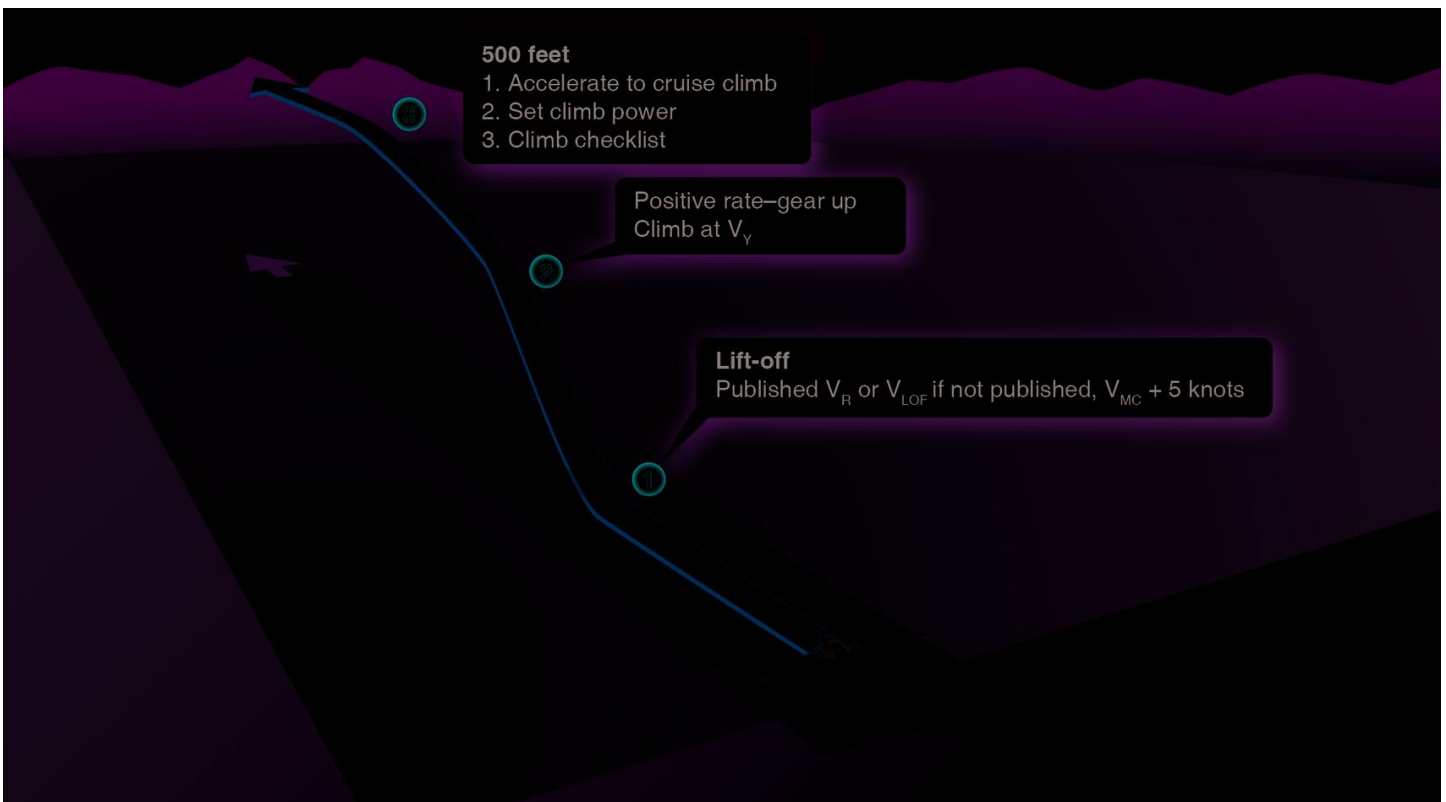


Figure 13-7. Takeoff and climb profile.

Short-Field Takeoff and Climb

The short-field takeoff and climb differs from the normal takeoff and climb in the airspeeds and initial climb profile. Some AFM/POHs give separate short-field takeoff procedures and performance charts that recommend specific flap settings and airspeeds. Other AFM/POHs do not provide separate short-field procedures. In the absence of such specific procedures, the airplane should be operated only as recommended in the AFM/POH. No operations should be conducted contrary to the recommendations in the AFM/POH.

On short-field takeoffs in general, just after rotation and lift-off, the airplane should be allowed to accelerate to V_X , making the initial climb over obstacles at V_X and transitioning to V_Y as obstacles are cleared. [Figure 13-8]

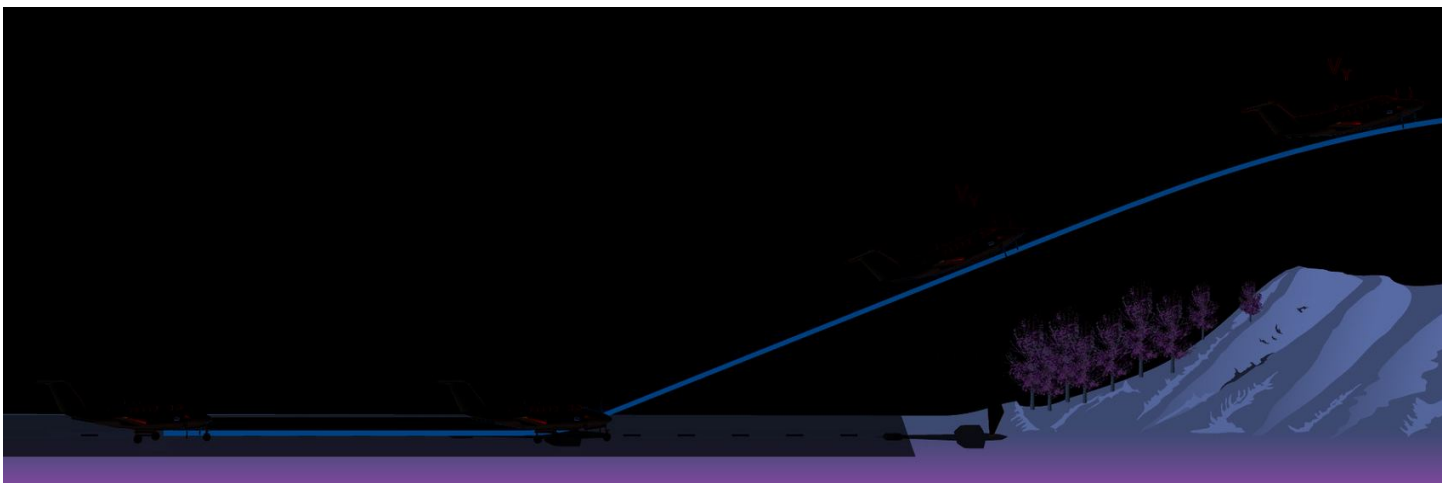


Figure 13-8. Short-field takeoff and climb

When partial flaps are recommended for short-field takeoffs, many light-twins have a strong tendency to become airborne prior to V_{MC} plus 5 knots. Attempting to prevent premature lift-off with forward elevator pressure results in wheel barrowing. To prevent this, allow the airplane to become airborne, but only a few inches above the runway. The pilot should be prepared to promptly abort the takeoff and land in the event of engine failure on takeoff with landing gear and flaps extended at airspeeds below V_X .

Engine failure on takeoff, particularly with obstructions, is compounded by the low airspeeds and steep climb attitudes utilized in short-field takeoffs. V_X and V_{XSE} are often perilously close to V_{MC} , leaving scant margin for error in the event of engine failure as V_{XSE} is assumed. If flaps were used for takeoff, the engine failure situation becomes even more critical due to the additional drag incurred. If V_X is less than 5 knots higher than V_{MC} , give strong consideration to reducing useful load or using another runway in order to increase the takeoff margins so that a short-field technique is not required.

Rejected Takeoff

A takeoff can be rejected for the same reasons a takeoff in a single-engine airplane would be rejected. Once the decision to reject a takeoff is made, the pilot should promptly close both throttles and maintain directional control with the rudder, nose-wheel steering, and brakes. Aggressive use of rudder, nose-wheel steering, and brakes may be required to keep the airplane on the runway, particularly if an engine failure is not immediately recognized and accompanied by prompt closure of both throttles. However, the primary objective is not necessarily to stop the airplane in the shortest distance, but to maintain control of the airplane as it decelerates. In some situations, it may be preferable to continue into the overrun area under control, rather than risk directional control loss, landing gear collapse, or tire/brake failure in an attempt to stop the airplane in the shortest possible distance.

Level Off and Cruise

Upon leveling off at cruising altitude, the pilot should allow the airplane to accelerate at climb power until cruising airspeed is achieved, and then cruise power and rpm should be set. To extract the maximum cruise performance from any airplane, the power setting tables provided by the manufacturer should be closely followed. If the cylinder head and oil temperatures are within their normal ranges, the cowl flaps may be closed. When the engine temperatures have stabilized, the mixtures may be leaned per AFM/POH recommendations. The remainder of the cruise checklist should be completed by this point.

Fuel management in multiengine airplanes is often more complex than in single-engine airplanes. Depending upon system design, the pilot may need to select between main tanks and auxiliary tanks or even employ fuel transfer from one tank to another. In complex fuel systems, limitations are often found restricting the use of some tanks to level flight only or requiring a reserve of fuel in the main tanks for descent and landing. Electric fuel pump operation can also vary widely among different models, particularly during tank switching or fuel transfer. Some fuel pumps are to be on for takeoff and landing; others are to be off. There is simply no substitute for thorough systems and AFM/POH knowledge when operating complex aircraft.

Slow Flight

There is nothing unusual about maneuvering during slow flight in a multiengine airplane. Slow flight may be conducted in straight-and-level flight, turns, climbs, or descents. It can also be conducted in the clean configuration, landing configuration, or at any other combination of landing gear and flaps. Slow flight in a multiengine airplane should be conducted so the maneuver can be completed no lower than 3,000 feet AGL or higher if recommended by the manufacturer. In all cases, practicing slow flight should be conducted at an adequate height above the ground for recovery should the airplane inadvertently stall.

Pilots should closely monitor cylinder head and oil temperatures during slow flight. Some high performance multiengine airplanes tend to heat up fairly quickly under some conditions of slow flight, particularly in the landing configuration. Simulated engine failures should not be conducted during slow flight. The airplane will be well below V_{SSE} and very close to V_{MC} . Stability, stall warning, or stall avoidance devices should not be disabled while maneuvering during slow flight.

Spin Awareness and Stalls

No multiengine airplane is approved for spins, and their spin recovery characteristics are generally very poor. It is therefore prudent to practice spin avoidance and maintain a high awareness of situations that can result in an inadvertent spin.

Spin Awareness

In order to spin any airplane, a stalled condition needs to exist. At the stall, the presence or introduction of a yawing moment can initiate spin entry. In a multiengine airplane, the yawing moment may be generated by rudder input or asymmetrical thrust. It follows, then, that spin awareness be at its greatest during V_{MC} demonstrations, stall practice, slow flight, or any condition of high asymmetrical thrust, particularly at low speed/high AOA. Single-engine stalls are not part of any multiengine training curriculum.

No engine failure should ever be introduced below safe, intentional one-engine inoperative speed (V_{SSE}). If no V_{SSE} is published, use V_{YSE} . Other than training situations, the multiengine airplane is only operated below V_{SSE} for mere seconds just after lift-off or during the last few dozen feet of altitude in preparation for landing.

For spin avoidance when practicing engine failures, the flight instructor should pay strict attention to the maintenance of proper airspeed and bank angle as the learner executes the appropriate procedure. The instructor should also be particularly alert during stall and slow flight practice. While flying with a center-of-gravity closer to the forward limit provides better stall and spin avoidance characteristics, it does not eliminate the hazard.

When performing a V_{MC} demonstration, the instructor should also be alert for any sign of an impending stall. The learner may be highly focused on the directional control aspect of the maneuver to the extent that impending stall indications go unnoticed. If a V_{MC} demonstration cannot be accomplished under existing conditions of density altitude, the instructor may, for training purposes, utilize a rudder blocking technique.

As very few twins have ever been spin-tested (none are required to), the recommended spin recovery techniques are based only on the best information available. The departure from controlled flight may be quite abrupt and possibly disorienting. The direction of an upright spin can be confirmed from the turn needle or the symbolic airplane of the turn coordinator, if necessary. Do not rely on the ball position or other instruments.

If a spin is entered, most manufacturers recommend immediately retarding both throttles to idle, applying full rudder opposite the direction of rotation, and applying full forward elevator/stabilator pressure (with ailerons neutral). These actions should be taken as near simultaneously as possible. The controls should then be held in that position until the spin has stopped. At that point adjust rudder pressure, back elevator pressure, and power as necessary to return to the desired flight path. Pilots should be aware that a spin recovery will take considerable altitude; therefore, it is critical that corrective action be taken immediately.

Stall Training

It is recommended that stalls be practiced at an altitude that allows recovery no lower than 3,000 feet AGL for multiengine airplanes, or higher if recommended by the AFM/POH. Losing altitude during recovery from a stall is to be expected.

Stall characteristics vary among multiengine airplanes just as they do with single-engine airplanes, and therefore, a pilot should be familiar with them. Yet, the most important stall recovery step in a multiengine airplane is the same as it is in all airplanes: reduce the angle of attack (AOA). For reference, the stall recovery procedure described in Chapter 5 is included in *Figure 13-9*. Following a reduction in the AOA and the stall warning being eliminated, the wings should be rolled level and power added as needed. Immediate full application of power in a stalled condition has an associated risk due to the possibility of asymmetric thrust. In addition, single-engine stalls, or stalls with significantly more power on one engine than the other, should not be attempted due to the likelihood of a departure from controlled flight and possible spin entry. Similarly, simulated engine failures should not be performed during stall entry and recovery.



Figure 13-9. *Stall recovery procedure.*

Power-Off Approach to Stall (Approach and Landing)

A power-off approach to stall is trained and checked to simulate problematic approach and landing scenarios. A power-off approach to stall may be performed with wings level, or from shallow turns (up to 20 degrees of bank). To initiate a power-off approach to stall maneuver, the area surrounding the airplane should first be cleared for possible traffic. The airplane should then be slowed and configured for an approach and landing. A stabilized descent should be established (approximately 500 fpm) and trim adjusted. A turn should be initiated at this point, if desired. The pilot should then smoothly increase the AOA to induce a stall warning. Power is reduced further during this phase, and trimming should cease at speeds slower than takeoff.

When the airplane reaches the stall warning (e.g., aural alert, buffet, etc.), the recovery is accomplished by first reducing the AOA until the stall warning is eliminated. The pilot then rolls the wings level with coordinated use of the rudder and smoothly applies power as required. The airplane should be accelerated to V_X (if simulated obstacles are present) or V_Y during recovery and climb. Considerable forward elevator/stabilator pressure will be required after the stall recovery as the airplane accelerates to V_X or V_Y . Appropriate trim input should be anticipated. The flap setting should be reduced from full to approach, or as recommended by the manufacturer. Then, with a positive rate of climb, the landing gear is selected up. The remaining flaps are then retracted as a positive rate-of-climb continues.

Power-On Approach to Stall (Takeoff and Departure)

A power-on approach to stall is trained and checked to simulate problematic takeoff scenarios. A power-on approach to stall may be performed from straight-and-level flight or from shallow and medium banked turns (up to 20 degrees of bank). To initiate a power-on approach to stall maneuver, the area surrounding the airplane should always be cleared to look for potential traffic. The airplane is slowed to the manufacturer's recommended lift-off speed. The airplane should be configured in the takeoff configuration. Trim should be adjusted for this speed. Engine power is then increased to that recommended in the AFM/POH for the practice of power-on approach to stall. In the absence of a recommended setting, use approximately 65 percent of maximum available power. Begin a turn, if desired, while increasing AOA to induce a stall warning (e.g., aural alert, buffet, etc.). Other specified (reduced) power settings may be used to simulate performance at higher gross weights and density altitudes.

When the airplane reaches the stall warning, the recovery is made first by reducing the AOA until the stall warning is eliminated. The pilot then rolls the wings level with coordinated use of the rudder and applying power as needed. However, if simulating limited power available for high gross weight and density altitude situations, the power during the recovery should be limited to that specified. The landing gear should be retracted when a positive rate of climb is attained, and flaps retracted, if flaps were set for takeoff. The target airspeed on recovery is V_X if (simulated) obstructions are present, or V_Y . The pilot should anticipate the need for nose-down trim as the airplane accelerates to V_X or V_Y after recovery.

Full Stall

It is not recommended that full stalls be practiced unless a qualified flight instructor is present. A power-off or power-on full stall should only be practiced in a structured lesson with clear learning objectives and cautions discussed. The goals of the training are (a) to provide the pilots the experience of the handling characteristics and dynamic cues (e.g., buffet, roll off) near and at full stall and (b) to reinforce the proper application of the stall recovery procedures. Given the associated risk of asymmetric thrust at high angles of attack and low rudder effectiveness due to low airspeeds, this reinforces the primary step of first lowering the AOA, which allows all control surfaces to become more effective and allows for roll to be better controlled. Thrust should only be used as needed in the recovery.

Accelerated Approach to Stall

Accelerated approach to stall should be performed with a bank of approximately 45°, and in no case at a speed greater than the airplane manufacturer's recommended airspeed, the specified design maneuvering speed (V_A), or operating maneuvering speed (V_O). The pilot should select an entry altitude that will allow completion of the maneuver no lower than 3,000 feet AGL.

The entry method for the maneuver is no different than for a single-engine airplane. Once at an appropriate speed, begin increasing the back pressure on the elevator while maintaining a coordinated 45° turn. A good speed reduction rate is approximately 3 to 5 knots per second. Once a stall warning occurs, recover promptly by reducing the AOA until the stall warning stops. Then, roll the wings level with coordinated rudder and add power as necessary to return to the desired flightpath.

Normal Approach and Landing

Given the higher cruising speed (and frequently altitude) of multiengine airplanes over most single-engine airplanes, the descent needs to be planned in advance. A hurried, last minute descent with power at or near idle is inefficient and can cause excessive engine cooling. It may also lead to passenger discomfort, particularly if the airplane is unpressurized. As a rule of thumb, if terrain and passenger conditions permit, a maximum of a 500 fpm rate of descent should be planned. Pressurized airplanes can plan for higher descent rates, if desired.

In a descent, some airplanes require a minimum EGT or may have a minimum power setting or cylinder head temperature to maintain. In any case, combinations of very low manifold pressure and high rpm settings are strongly discouraged by engine manufacturers. If higher descent rates are necessary, the pilot should consider extending partial flaps or lowering the landing gear before retarding the power excessively. The descent checklist should be initiated upon leaving cruising altitude and completed before arrival in the terminal area. Upon arrival in the terminal area, pilots are encouraged to turn on their landing and recognition lights when operating below 10,000 feet, day or night, and especially when operating within 10 miles of any airport or in conditions of reduced visibility.

The traffic pattern and approach are typically flown at somewhat higher indicated airspeeds in a multiengine airplane contrasted to most single-engine airplanes. The pilot may allow for this through an early start on the before-landing checklist. This provides time for proper planning, spacing, and thinking well ahead of the airplane. Many multiengine airplanes have partial flap extension speeds above V_{FE} , and partial flaps can be deployed prior to traffic pattern entry. Normally, the landing gear should be selected and confirmed down when abeam the intended point of landing as the downwind leg is flown. [Figure 13-10]

The FAA recommends a stabilized approach concept. To the greatest extent practical, on final approach and within 500 feet AGL, the airplane should be on speed, in trim, configured for landing, tracking the extended centerline of the runway, and established in a constant angle of descent toward an aim point in the touchdown zone. Absent unusual flight conditions, only minor corrections are required to maintain this approach to the round out and touchdown.

The final approach should be made with power and at a speed recommended by the manufacturer; if a recommended speed is not furnished, the speed should be no slower than the single-engine best rate-of-climb speed (V_{YSE}) until short final with the landing assured, but in no case less than critical engine-out minimum control speed (V_{MC}). Some multiengine pilots prefer to delay full flap extension to short final with the landing assured. This is an acceptable technique with appropriate experience and familiarity with the airplane.

In the round out for landing, residual power is gradually reduced to idle. With the higher wing loading of multiengine airplanes and with the drag from two windmilling propellers, there is minimal float. Full stall landings are generally undesirable in twins. The airplane should be held off as with a high performance single-engine model, allowing touchdown of the main wheels prior to a full stall.

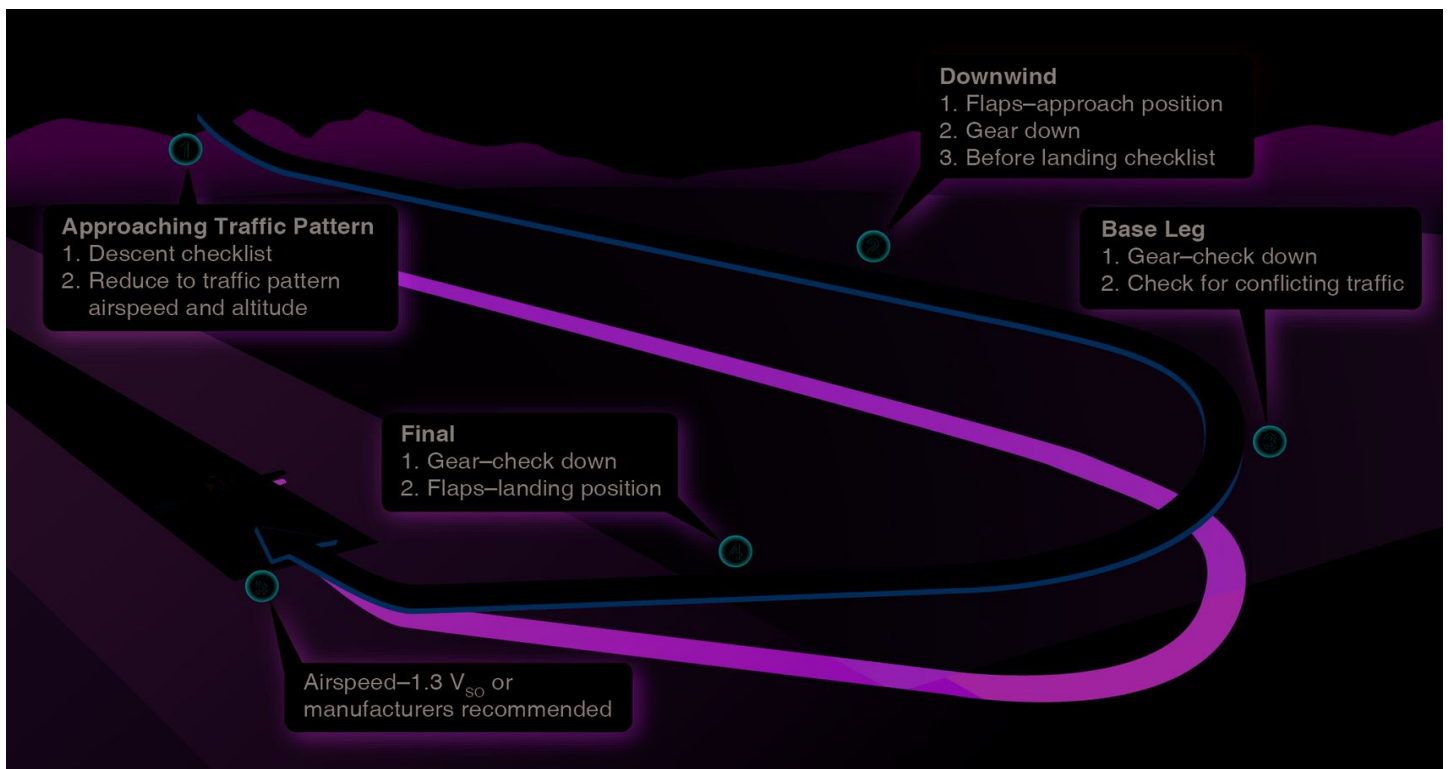


Figure 13-10. Normal two-engine approach and landing.

Under favorable wind and runway conditions, the nose-wheel can be held off for best aerodynamic braking. Even as the nose-wheel is gently lowered to the runway centerline, continued elevator back pressure greatly assists the wheel brakes in stopping the airplane.

If runway length is critical, or with a strong crosswind, or if the surface is contaminated with water, ice, or snow, it is undesirable to rely solely on aerodynamic braking after touchdown. The full weight of the airplane should be placed on the wheels as soon as practicable. The wheel brakes are more effective than aerodynamic braking alone in decelerating the airplane.

Once on the ground, elevator back pressure should be used to place additional weight on the main wheels. When necessary, wing flap retraction also adds additional weight to the wheels and improves braking effectivity. Flap retraction during the landing rollout is discouraged, however, unless there is a clear, operational need. It should not be accomplished as routine with each landing.

Some multiengine airplanes, particularly those of the cabin class variety, can be flown through the round out and touchdown with a small amount of power. This is an acceptable technique to prevent high sink rates and to cushion the touchdown. The pilot should keep in mind, however, that the primary purpose in landing is to get the airplane down and stopped. This technique should only be attempted when there is a generous margin of runway length. As propeller blast flows directly over the wings, lift as well as thrust is produced. The pilot should taxi clear of the runway as soon as speed and safety permit, and then accomplish the after-landing checklist. Ordinarily, no attempt should be made to retract the wing flaps or perform other checklist duties until the airplane has been brought to a halt when clear of the active runway. Exceptions to this would be the rare operational needs discussed above, to relieve the weight from the wings and place it on the wheels. In these cases, AFM/POH guidance should be followed. The pilot should not indiscriminately reach out for any switch or control on landing rollout. An inadvertent landing gear retraction while meaning to retract the wing flaps may result.

Crosswind Approach and Landing

The multiengine airplane is often easier to land in a crosswind than a single-engine airplane due to its higher approach and landing speed. In any event, the principles are no different between singles and twins. Prior to touchdown, the longitudinal axis should be aligned with the runway centerline to avoid landing gear side loads.

The two primary methods, crab and wing-low, are typically used in conjunction with each other. As soon as the airplane rolls out onto final approach, the crab angle to track the extended runway centerline is established. This is coordinated flight with adjustments to heading to compensate for wind drift either left or right. Prior to touchdown, the transition to a sideslip is made with the upwind wing lowered and opposite rudder applied to prevent a turn. The airplane touches down on the landing gear of the upwind wing first, followed by that of the downwind wing, and then the nose gear. Follow-through with the flight controls involves an increasing application of aileron into the wind until full control deflection is reached.